Forecasting the Future Through a Partisan Lens: Electoral Outcomes and Household Expectations

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Abstract

Using a unique survey experiment fielded around the 2024 U.S. presidential election, we study how politically salient events shape household expectations. We examine both the first and second moments of expectations, as well as the joint updating of inflation and unemployment expectations. We find sharp partisan updating: Republicans revise both inflation and unemployment expectations downward, while Democrats revise both upward. In contrast, subjective uncertainty declines for both groups. We also test whether AI-generated personas can reproduce these patterns. While some models replicate the qualitative direction of updating, Concordance Correlation Coefficients remain low and do not exceed 0.10. These results suggest that LLM-generated responses can only partially capture partisan distortions in expectations, warranting caution in their use as substitutes for human survey data.

JEL Classification: E7, C8, C45

Keywords: Political partisanship; AI agents; survey data

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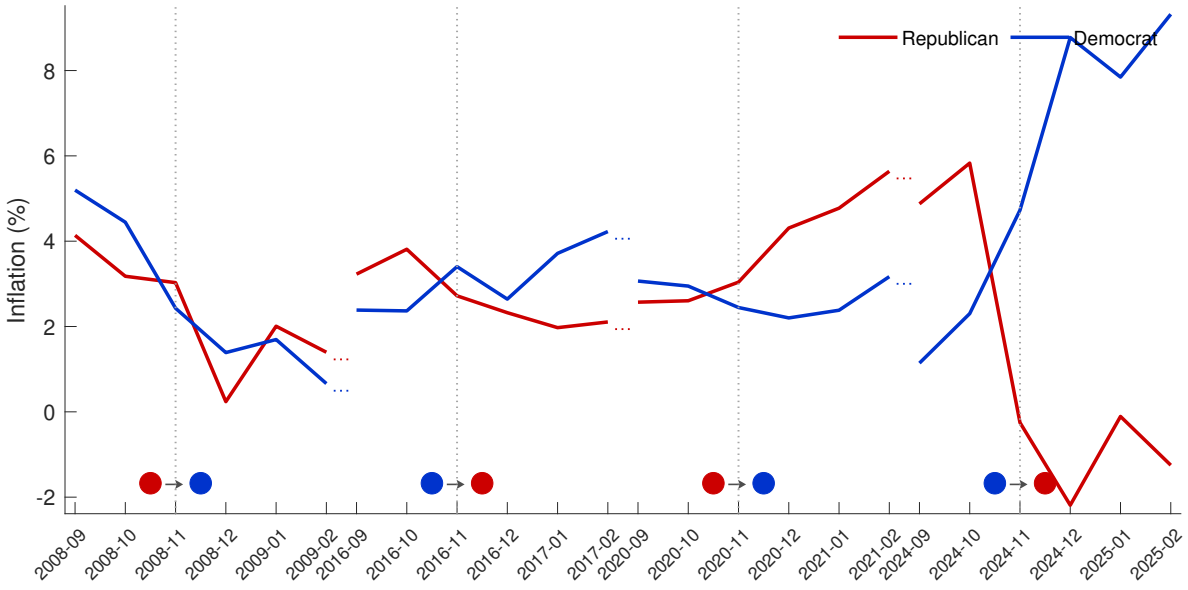
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"We don't see things as they are, we see them as we are."

— Anaïs Nin

Political polarization in the United States has risen sharply over the past several decades, influencing not only partisan divisions but also the way individuals perceive social and economic reality. As political identities become increasingly salient, households appear more likely to evaluate economic conditions and form expectations about the future through a partisan lens. A growing body of economic research shows that political beliefs meaningfully shape expectations, leading households to revise their outlook for key macroeconomic variables following shifts in political power (see Figure 1). However, this literature remains limited in two important respects. First, most contributions focus on a single outcome (most often inflation expectations) rather than analyzing the comovement of expectations across multiple economic variables. Second, they largely overlook higher moments of expectations, such as uncertainty and disagreement, even though these dimensions are crucial for understanding how political events reshape beliefs and, more broadly, for economic dynamics in general. This paper further contributes by examining whether these patterns can be reproduced using AI-generated personas. This is a promising but still underexplored direction of research. We study whether synthetic agents can replicate not only the first moments of post-election forecast revisions, but also the second moments of expectations, including uncertainty and disagreement. Doing so helps assess the extent to which AI-generated populations can serve as a credible complement to survey data and, more broadly, whether they may provide a useful framework for counterfactual exercises aimed at understanding how expectations might have evolved under alternative political outcomes.

In this project, we develop a novel survey experiment centered on the 2024 U.S. presidential election. Specifically, we field a two-wave panel survey around Election Day in which respondents report point forecasts and probabilistic beliefs about inflation and unemployment over the subsequent 12 months shortly before the election and again on the morning after the outcome is known. The narrow timing window sharply reduces the scope for confounding influences, allowing us to interpret revisions in beliefs primarily as responses to election news rather than to subsequent policy actions or gradual macroeconomic developments. Our survey design also allows us to study second moments of expectations, such as subjective uncertainty and within-group disagreement, as well as the joint updating of inflation and unemployment expectations, — features that are difficult to examine in the context of political polarization using publicly avail-



Notes: Using monthly data from the Michigan Survey of Consumers, aggregate 12-month-ahead inflation expectations are plotted. Colored circles indicate the party holding the White House after each presidential election (blue for Democrats and red for Republicans). The figure highlights only presidential elections in which the incumbent party changes.

Figure 1: Inflation Expectations Switch By Partisanship

able datasets.

Our findings document large and sharply polarized belief revisions. After Trump's victory, Republican-affiliated respondents revise both inflation and unemployment expectations downward, while Democrat-affiliated respondents revise both upward. Independents update in a direction closer to Republicans. Because these revisions occur before any realized policy changes, they are consistent with the interpretation that partisan identity shapes the processing of common information. Notably, inflation and unemployment expectations move together within partisan groups, both in their first moments and in their second moments. This comovement stands in contrast to the conventional Phillips curve view, which would suggest that the two variables should be perceived as moving in opposite directions. The response of uncertainty is also asymmetric: Republicans become more confident, with subjective uncertainty declining, whereas Democrats show little change in subjective uncertainty, although the effect still points downward. Meanwhile, within-party disagreement falls among Republicans but rises among Democrats, suggesting that the same public signal can generate convergence in beliefs for one group and divergence for another.

Taking a step further, this paper examines whether AI personas that mirror the de-

mographic characteristics of our survey participants (including income, gender, education, age, region of residence, and political identity) can reproduce the patterns observed in survey responses. Using widely used LLM models, GPT-5.1, Claude Sonnet 4.6, and Gemini-3.1-pro-preview, synthetic AI agents partly replicate the forecast revisions observed in household surveys following news about the election results. In particular, AI-generated responses capture similar directional changes in point forecasts. However, the variance of forecasts, both at the aggregate level (disagreement across individuals) and at the individual level (subjective uncertainty within individuals), does not align perfectly with the changes in uncertainty observed among households in response to electoral outcomes. One possible explanation is that the existing literature linking expectations formation to political affiliation has focused primarily on point forecasts of macroeconomic variables. Consequently, LLMs may not have sufficiently learned how the dispersion of expectations or the variance of distributional forecasts responds to political events and partisan identity.

To further explore this mechanism, we conduct a counterfactual exercise by providing AI agents with an alternative information treatment in which Kamala Harris wins the election. Under this scenario, Democratic AI agents lower their inflation and unemployment expectations, while Republican AI agents raise theirs, consistent with findings in the existing literature. Nevertheless, the variance dimension of expectations is not systematically reproduced.

Our findings contributes to a growing literature on political polarization and macroeconomic expectations. Existing work documents that partisans hold systematically different outlooks and that electoral outcomes shift average expectations. For instance, Coibion et al. (2020) show that expectations differ sharply when respondents forecast conditionally on a candidate winning, underscoring the partisan nature of macro beliefs. Using Gallup and Michigan Survey of Consumers (SCE) data, Mian et al. (2023) document how aggregate expectation gaps evolve across political affiliations around the 2008 and 2016 elections. Related work highlights that political alignment also shapes perceived institutional trust: Kuang et al. (2024) show that under a hypothetical Trump victory, Republicans are more likely to view the Federal Reserve as an in-group institution, while Democrats are more likely to view it as an out-group institution; Kuang et al. (2025) and Binder et al. (2025) document pronounced partisan differences in trust in the Fed and inflation expectations around the 2025 Trump inauguration. Finally, DiGiuseppe et al. (2025) report sizable inflation-expectation updating after the 2024 election using a pre-election survey and a follow-up one month later.

We complement this evidence in three ways. First, rather than relying on hypothetical scenarios, information treatments, or low-frequency field data, we use a tightly timed two-wave panel around Election Day to measure belief revisions in real time and natural settings. This high-frequency design isolates revisions to the election outcome itself (before policy implementation) and provides a useful lens on partisan updating to a common public signal. Second, we go beyond mean effects and document second-moment responses: how subjective uncertainty and within-party disagreement move after the election, and how these movements differ by political affiliation. Third, we study joint updating of inflation and unemployment expectations, providing evidence on how households map political news into a broader macro outlook and highlighting heterogeneity in underlying mental models.

Our study contributes to an important but still underdeveloped literature on the macroeconomic role of disagreement and uncertainty in expectations. Mankiw et al. (2003) argues that disagreement dynamics are economically meaningful and should be incorporated into macroeconomic models. Falck et al. (2021) further show that the effectiveness of monetary policy depends on the extent of disagreement about future inflation. With respect to uncertainty, Bachmann et al. (2013) show that uncertainty shocks are associated with declines in production and real activity. Our paper adds to this literature by identifying salient political events as a determinant of both uncertainty and disagreement. Specifically, we show that even when aggregate expectations exhibit little noticeable change (because the responses of Democrats and Republicans offset one another), elections still exert a statistically significant effect on both uncertainty and disagreement.

The paper also speaks to an emerging literature that studies whether AI-generated personas can replicate the behavior of human agents (Horton, 2023; Argyle et al., 2023; Hansen et al., 2024; Zarifhonarvar, 2026). Recent evidence suggests that large language models can reproduce some empirical regularities in economic expectations and public opinion, including heterogeneous inflation expectations and survey-like ideological patterns. Yet most of this work has focused on broad simulation environments, public opinion measurement, or persuasion, rather than on partisan belief formation in the aftermath of salient political events. As a result, it remains unclear whether AI-generated personas can recover the polarized updating of macroeconomic expectations documented in household survey data, especially with respect to higher moments such as subjective uncertainty and disagreement. We address this gap by applying AI-generated personas to the context of presidential elections and testing whether they replicate both the first and second moments of post-election expectation revisions.

1 Experiment and Data

The survey is designed to measure high-frequency belief updating around the 2024 presidential election. We fielded a two-wave panel: respondents reported pre-election expectations shortly before Election Day and were re-interviewed on November 6, 2024, after the outcome became known. This structure allows us to compare within-respondent revisions in inflation and unemployment expectations and to relate these revisions to political affiliation.

The first wave took place on November 1–2, 2024, three days before the U.S. Presidential Election. This survey was part of the Randomized Control Trial (RCT) experiment described in Drobot (2025). In this wave, respondents were asked to provide their 12-month-ahead inflation and unemployment expectations in the form of density forecasts and point forecasts. In designing the inflation expectations elicitation method, we followed the approach used in the well-known New York Fed Survey of Consumer Expectations (SCE). Armantier et al. (2017) provides an overview of the SCE and the rationale behind its question formatting. In addition, our survey included a series of open-ended questions, political affiliation questions, demographic questions, and other relevant questions. Respondents were also asked about their expectations regarding the election outcome, which lets us distinguish updating when the realized outcome aligns with prior beliefs from updating under surprise.

The second wave was conducted on the morning of November 6, 2024, immediately after the election results were announced.[1] Respondents were first asked the same density forecast questions about inflation and unemployment as in the first wave. They were then shown a news post from The New York Times reporting Donald Trump's election victory, and asked to select a Facebook-like reaction towards the news. After this, they provided point forecasts for inflation and unemployment.

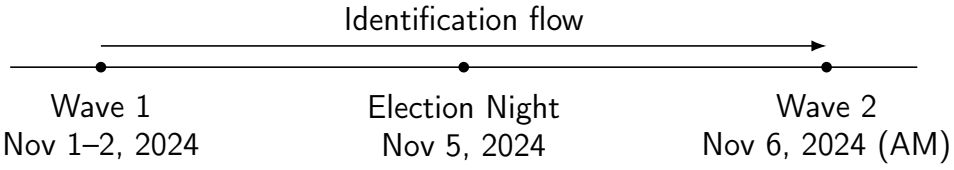


Figure 2: Survey timeline around the 2024 U.S. election

[1] To our knowledge, there were no significant policy announcements or newly released macroeconomic data that could have noticeably affected expectations. This suggests that the election outcome was likely the most salient signal respondents received during that short period.

It is important to note that the information treatment in the second wave had no measurable effect, as most respondents were already aware of the election outcome (confirmed by a control question). This finding highlights how quickly major news spreads among the public.

To obtain a U.S.-representative sample, we recruited participants through the Prolific platform. In the first wave of the survey, we collected 986 responses. From this pool, we randomly selected 399 individuals to participate in a follow-up survey (second wave).[2] In our analysis, we classify respondents as Democrats or Republicans if they either identify with a party or lean toward it. Appendix Table A-1 summarizes the demographic characteristics of the sample. Democrats in our data tend to be younger, somewhat more racially diverse, and more likely to have attended college than Republicans. These patterns closely mirror the demographic profiles of Republican and Democratic voters reported in other surveys.[3]

2 Partisan Forecast Revision

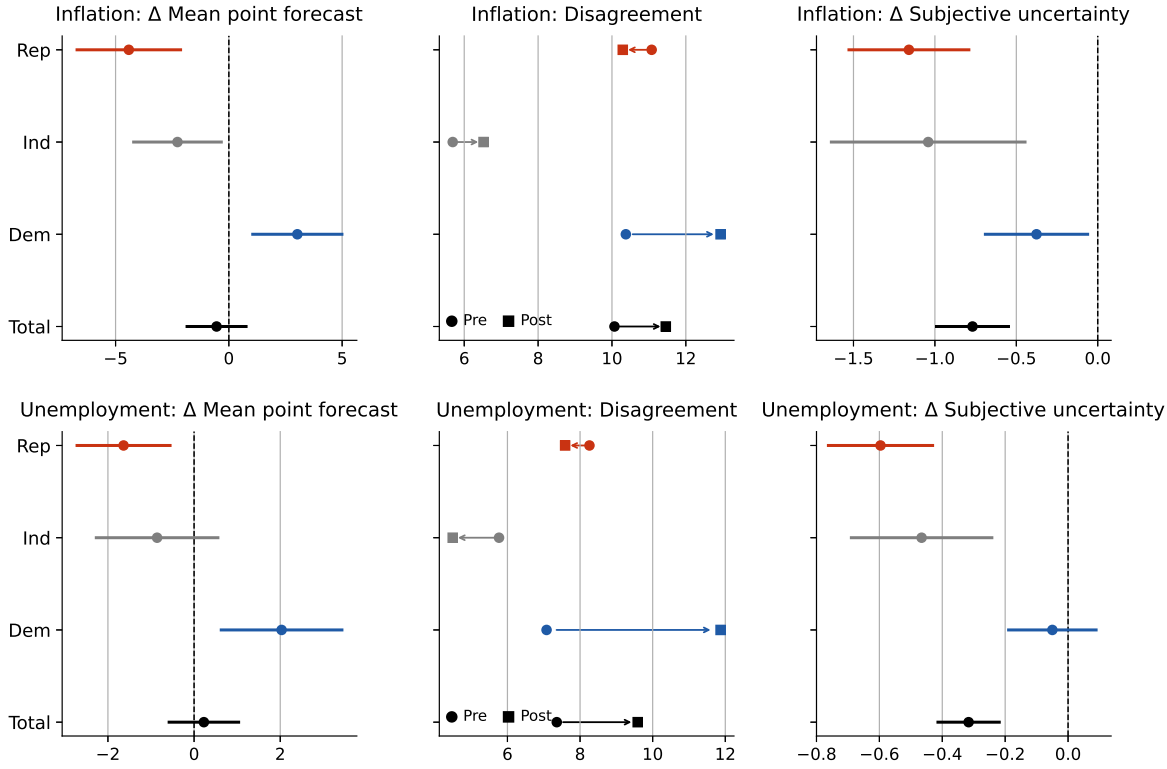
2.1 Descriptive Facts

Figure 3 summarizes the main empirical results by presenting the mean forecast revision, the change in aggregate disagreement, and the mean change in subjective uncertainty. We discuss each of these findings below.

Partisan-Biased Forecast Revisions In the days preceding the election, expectations already differed sharply by political affiliation. Democrats reported lower expected inflation than Republicans, but also lower expected unemployment. Mean inflation expectations were 2.30% among Democrats and 3.93% among Republicans, while mean unemployment expectations were 6.34% and 7.83%, respectively. As Appendix Figure A-1 shows, these differences were accompanied by strongly polarized electoral beliefs: 72% of Democrats expected Kamala Harris to win, whereas 80% of Republicans expected a Donald Trump victory.

Following the election, we observe an immediate and highly partisan revision in beliefs. Consistent with Kamdar and Ray (2023), respondents update their expectations sharply once the electoral outcome becomes known. The direction of updating is strongly

[2] The second wave included more participants, but not all respondents completed the survey.
[3] Pew Research Center, 2023



Notes: The figure shows how inflation and unemployment beliefs changed after the election across political affiliation groups. The Δ panels report the average change between post-election and pre-election responses in mean point forecasts and subjective uncertainty; whiskers indicate 95% confidence intervals. The disagreement panels report belief dispersion in levels, measured as the cross-sectional standard deviation before the election (circles) and after the election (squares). The categories Rep, Ind, and Dem denote Republicans, Independents, and Democrats, respectively; Total refers to the full sample.

Figure 3: Election-Induced Changes in Expectations, Disagreement, and Uncertainty

polarized: Democrats revise both inflation and unemployment expectations upward, while Republicans and Independents revise both downward. This pattern is notable because it runs counter to the conventional Phillips curve intuition, under which inflation and unemployment would typically be expected to move in opposite directions. Instead, our evidence suggests that households interpret the same political event through a partisan lens, generating comovement in expectations across macroeconomic variables rather than internally consistent updating based on standard macroeconomic relationships.

The magnitude of these revisions is economically meaningful. In particular, Republicans on average come to expect deflation after the election, with mean inflation expectations falling to -0.49%. This need not be interpreted as a pessimistic assessment of

the economy. A large literature shows that households generally regard inflation as undesirable (Stantcheva, 2024; Shiller, 1997), so lower inflation expectations may instead reflect a more favorable economic outlook. Our survey data support this interpretation. As shown in Appendix Figure A-2, respondents tend to associate lower inflation with better economic outcomes, and those who initially expected deflation frequently evaluated it as "Very Good" for the economy.

A central implication of these results is that aggregation obscures substantial heterogeneity in belief updating. The downward revisions among Republicans are, to a large extent, offset by the upward revisions among Democrats, leaving relatively little movement in the aggregate mean. An analysis centered only on first moments would therefore suggest limited post-election updating, even though within-party revisions are large and systematic. This compositional masking is important, because it implies that aggregate stability need not reflect the absence of belief change; it may instead arise from offsetting partisan responses to a common public signal.

For this reason, a focus on mean revisions alone is incomplete. To understand how political events reshape expectations, one must also examine second moments, including subjective uncertainty and disagreement.

Partisan Asymmetries in Disagreement In contrast to the average point forecast, aggregate disagreement, measured by the standard deviation of forecasts, increased after the election. This increase was driven primarily by Democrats, indicating greater dispersion in their post-election beliefs. Among Republicans, by contrast, disagreement declined, suggesting that the election outcome compressed beliefs within the group. This pattern is in line with prospect theory (Tversky and Kahneman, 1979), according to which losses loom larger than gains, implying stronger and more heterogeneous responses among those on the losing side of the election. If unfavorable political outcomes generate stronger and more heterogeneous reactions than favorable ones, this helps explain why disagreement widens among Democrats but narrows among Republicans. As with average expectations, disagreement in inflation and unemployment forecasts moved in the same direction within each political affiliation.

This pattern points to a broader implication: the distinction between political winners and losers in salient public events may itself be an important determinant of disagreement. This is economically meaningful because disagreement is not simply a residual feature of expectations data, but a variable of independent interest. As Mankiw et al. (2003) argue, disagreement "may be a key to macroeconomic dynamics." Our findings

therefore suggest that major political events may matter for macroeconomic dynamics even when aggregate mean expectations appear stable, because they can generate substantial changes in disagreement across and within partisan groups that standard analyses based on first moments alone would miss.

Partisan Asymmetries in Subjective Uncertainty One important advantage of our survey design is that, in addition to point forecasts, we elicit density forecasts, which allow us to measure individual-level forecast uncertainty.[4] We find that subjective uncertainty declines after the election both in the aggregate and within most political groups, with the exception of Democrats' unemployment expectations. In other words, following the resolution of electoral uncertainty, respondents generally become more confident in their forecasts. This pattern is consistent with the recent findings of Drobot (2025), who show, using social media news data together with the New York Fed's Survey of Consumer Expectations (SCE), that emotionally charged events can increase certainty in household expectations. It is also in line with evidence from psychology showing that some strong emotions, whether positive or negative, can produce greater subjective certainty in judgment (Tiedens and Linton, 2001). In our setting, both Republicans and Democrats appear to experience strong emotional reactions to the election outcome, albeit of opposite valence, and this may help explain the broad decline in subjective uncertainty that we document.

Our finding also carries an important economic implication, because expectations uncertainty can shape household decision-making. Existing research shows that uncertainty about future economic conditions itself affects choices such as consumption, borrowing, saving, and investment (Ben-David et al., 2018). This implies that focusing exclusively on first moments after salient public events can be misleading for policymakers. In our setting, aggregate mean expectations exhibit little movement because partisan revisions largely offset one another. Yet subjective uncertainty and disagreement change markedly. A policymaker observing only the average expectation could therefore conclude that the election had little effect on households' economic outlook, even though the event may still influence behavior through changes in confidence and the dispersion of beliefs. For central banks in particular, this suggests that monitoring first moments alone may understate the economic consequences of major political shocks.

[4] We measure subjective uncertainty as the standard deviation implied by the density forecast, estimated using the center-point approach.

2.2 Baseline Specification

To examine the effects of partisanship on forecast revisions and household confidence, we estimate the following baseline specification,

$$\Delta y_i = \beta_0 + \beta_1 S_i + \beta_2 P_i + \Psi X_i, \tag{1}$$

where Δy_i denotes household i's forecast revisions and changes in subjective uncertainty. Forecast revisions for unemployment and inflation rates are computed by subtracting individuals' point forecasts from the prior survey, conducted on November 1–2, from the posterior point forecasts collected in the second survey, conducted on November 6. Changes in subjective uncertainty surrounding inflation and unemployment rates are constructed analogously.

X_i is a vector of control variables including household income, education level, age, family size, race, and cognitive ability. Cognitive ability is proxied by a battery of eight questions covering financial literacy, based on which respondents are divided into three groups: low (0–2 correct), medium (3–5 correct), and high (6–8 correct). All other control variables are categorical, as described in Appendix Table A-1, with the exception of family size.

$S_i \in$ {Harris, Unsure/other, Trump} is a surprise variable capturing the information effect of the election outcome, where households are grouped according to their prior expectation of the winner. When the realized outcome differs from what was anticipated, forecast revisions are expected to be larger than when the outcome aligns with prior expectations. For the same reason, subjective uncertainty — capturing an individual's confidence in their beliefs — may change to a different degree. $P_i \in$ {Democrat, Independent, Republican} denotes household i's political affiliation. The reference group consists of Republican households who anticipated a Trump victory prior to the election.

Point Forecast Revisions Table 1 reveals that Republican households who predicted a Trump victory in the pre-election survey revised their inflation and unemployment forecasts most sharply downward following the election outcome. The information effect is statistically significant across both macroeconomic variables, robust to the inclusion of demographic controls. In contrast, Democrat households revised their forecasts significantly upward. Independent households, however, show no statistically significant revision relative to Democrats, suggesting that forecast revisions are primarily driven

Table 1: OLS Regression: Point Forecast Revisions

	Inflation		Unemployment	
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)
Constant	-4.250***	-6.535***	-1.721***	-5.017***
	(0.665)	(2.520)	(0.433)	(1.637)
Surprise | Unsure/Other	3.578***	3.307**	1.703**	1.661**
	(1.269)	(1.290)	(0.827)	(0.838)
Surprise | Kamala Harris	2.943***	2.731**	1.926***	1.807***
	(1.054)	(1.064)	(0.687)	(0.691)
Democrat	3.761***	3.786***	1.395**	1.614**
	(1.076)	(1.093)	(0.701)	(0.710)
Independent	-0.092	0.277	-0.246	0.222
	(1.237)	(1.267)	(0.806)	(0.823)
Control variables	No	Yes	No	Yes
R-squared	0.131	0.158	0.078	0.113
Obs	399	399	399	399

Notes: Standard errors in parentheses. Dependent variables are winsorized at the 2.5th and 97.5th percentiles. * $p < 0.1$, ** $p < 0.05$, *** $p < 0.01$. Base: Partisan = Republican, Surprise = Trump's victory.

by partisan identity rather than a general reassessment of macroeconomic conditions. Taken together, these findings are consistent with the view that households revise their macroeconomic outlook more pessimistically — expecting higher inflation and unemployment — when their preferred candidate loses. Particularly, Democrats who anticipated a Harris victory revised their inflation forecasts upward by 2.9 percentage points and their unemployment forecasts by 1.9 percentage points relative to Democrats who had predicted a Trump victory. Conditional on demographic characteristics, these estimates remain qualitatively similar, at 2.7 and 1.8 percentage points respectively, suggesting that the partisan effect is not merely driven by compositional differences across groups. Beyond point forecast revisions, we further examine whether partisan identity shapes changes in subjective uncertainty, which we turn to next.

Subjective Uncertainty Revisions Table 2 shows that Republican households who anticipated a Trump victory exhibit a significant decline in subjective uncertainty following the election, indicating that they became more confident in their macroeconomic beliefs. This result holds across all specifications, with the exception of column (4) which

Table 2: OLS Regression: Subjective Uncertainty Revisions

	Inflation		Unemployment	
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)
Constant	-1.135***	-1.804**	-0.555***	0.119
	(0.188)	(0.713)	(0.079)	(0.301)
Surprise | Unsure/Other	0.152	0.081	-0.126	-0.167
	(0.359)	(0.365)	(0.151)	(0.154)
Surprise | Kamala Harris	-0.102	-0.142	-0.046	-0.045
	(0.298)	(0.301)	(0.126)	(0.127)
Democrat	0.779**	0.855***	0.533***	0.507***
	(0.305)	(0.309)	(0.128)	(0.131)
Independent	0.104	0.313	0.155	0.115
	(0.350)	(0.358)	(0.147)	(0.152)
Control variables	No	Yes	No	Yes
R-squared	0.027	0.059	0.065	0.086
Obs	399	399	399	399

Notes: Standard errors in parentheses. Dependent variables are winsorized at the 2.5th and 97.5th percentiles. * $p < 0.1$, ** $p < 0.05$, *** $p < 0.01$. Base: Partisan = Republican, Surprise = Trump's victory.

conditions on the full set of demographic controls. Notably, the information effect, captured by the surprise variable, does not play a statistically significant role in shaping changes in subjective uncertainty, suggesting that it is partisan identity rather than the degree of electoral surprise that drives confidence updates. While Democrat households also reduce their subjective uncertainty following the election, their uncertainty levels remain significantly larger relative to Republican households. These results suggest that the realized electoral outcome enhances forecast confidence across all households regardless of political affiliation, yet a persistent partisan gap in subjective uncertainty remains, with Democrats retaining considerably higher uncertainty even after the election.

3 Synthetic AI Survey

To assess whether forecasts produced by synthetic panelists can mimic human forecasts of the future economy in response to news about the electoral outcome, we evaluate three LLMs: `GPT-5.1`, `Claude Sonnet 4.6`, and `Gemini-3.1-pro-preview`. We selected these models because they were among the most advanced and widely used mod-

els at the time of writing, while also accounting for their knowledge cutoff dates.

3.1 Knowledge Cutoff

As emphasized by Sekhposyan et al. (2026), even when researchers use prompts to create pseudo out-of-sample environments for LLM models, these models may still draw on information beyond what the prompt specifies when forming forward-looking expectations. For instance, consider a model with a knowledge cutoff date of October 2025 that is explicitly instructed to forecast using only data available through November 2, 2024. Despite this instruction, the model may be influenced by macroeconomic data learned during its training period, rendering the information conditioning ineffective. As Sekhposyan et al. (2026) demonstrate, such information can be "inadvertently accessed or internalized" during the forecasting process.

Although we employed conditioning prompts in both survey waves, we took additional precautions in model selection. Our human survey was conducted on November 2nd and 6th, 2024, allowing us to examine how respondents revise their forecasts in response to events occurring between these dates. To replicate this environment with AI agents, we provided election outcomes through conditioning prompts and selected models with knowledge cutoff dates that minimize information leakage concerns. Specifically, `GPT-5.1`, with a knowledge cutoff of September 2024, operates in an information environment nearly identical to that of human respondents prior to receiving our prompts, making it our preferred baseline model.[5] Additionally, we include `Claude Sonnet 4.6` and `Gemini-3.1-pro-preview`, both with knowledge cutoff dates in 2025 (August and January, respectively), to assess whether our findings generalize across model providers.[6] Because these models likely internalized post-election information during training, our conditioning prompts may be less effective at controlling their information environment, raising potential information leakage concerns. Nevertheless, including them allows us to test the robustness of our results: if the response patterns remain consistent even under less controlled information conditions, this strengthens confidence in our core findings.

While knowledge cutoff dates are based on official announcements by LLM providers, these disclosures may not always be precise. Continuous model updates and reporting

[5] See "GPT-5.1," accessed March 29, 2026, https://developers.openai.com/api/docs/models/gpt-5.1.

[6] For Claude Sonnet 4.6, see "Claude Sonnet 4.6" at https://www.anthropic.com/transparency, and for Gemini-3.1-Pro-Preview, see https://docs.cloud.google.com/vertex-ai/generative-ai/docs/models/gemini/3-1-pro (both accessed March 29, 2026).

lags mean that the effective information boundary of a given model may differ from its stated cutoff. To verify the information environment of each model, we conducted a series of litmus tests by directly querying each model with three prompts: (1) its self-reported knowledge cutoff date, (2) the winner of the 2024 U.S. Presidential Election and the identity of the Democratic Vice Presidential candidate, and (3) the outcome of the February 2025 German federal election. The specific prompts and model responses are provided in Appendix B.[7]

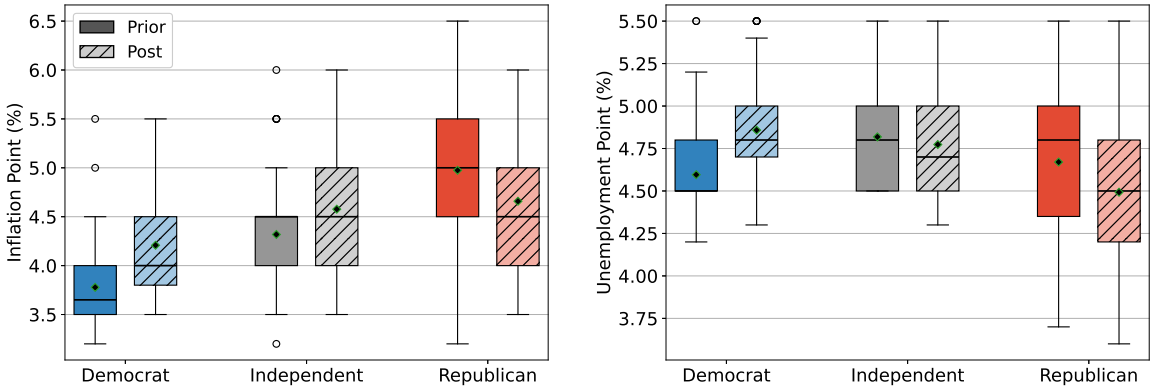
3.2 Experiment and Results

All LLM models are run under their default settings using Expected Parrot.[8] We do not view this as a limitation of the analysis. Our objective is to approximate the outputs that typical users would receive under standard, off-the-shelf configurations. These are precisely the kinds of outputs that may diffuse through media, search, and everyday interactions with AI assistants, thereby providing a plausible channel through which model-generated content could influence households' real-world expectations.

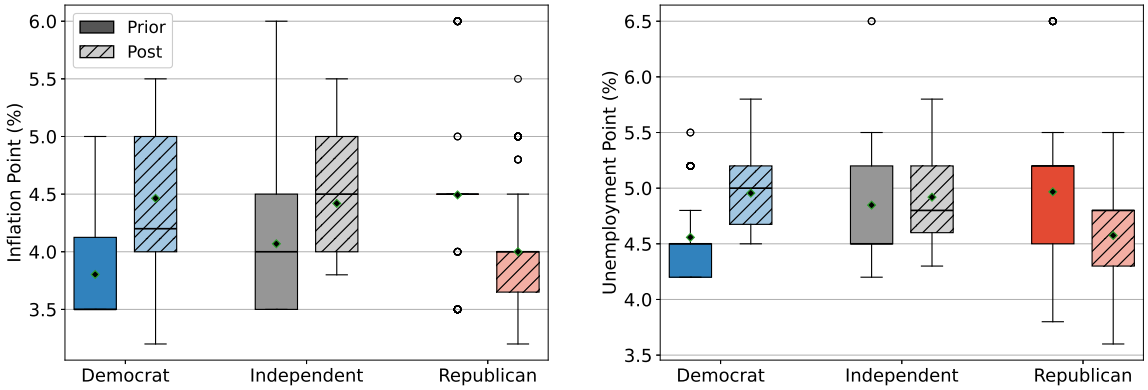
We construct respondent-like "personas" designed to mirror our sample along observable characteristics, including state of residence, age, gender, race, family structure, education, income, employment status, political affiliation, news consumption, and expected election winner. Each persona receives two time-stamped prompts aligned with our survey waves. The first is a *pre-election* prompt, fixed at **November 2, 2024**, that rules out hindsight and elicits: (i) a qualitative judgment about inflation versus deflation, (ii) a 12-month point forecast for inflation and unemployment, (iii) a 12-month density forecast for inflation and unemployment. The second is a *post-election* prompt, fixed to the **morning of November 6, 2024**, that permits only information available from next-morning headlines indicating that Donald Trump won the election, reproduces the persona's own pre-election response for continuity, and requests the same set of outputs. Both prompts use neutral wording, restrict knowledge to what a typical U.S. resident might plausibly know on the stated date, and impose a strict plain-text response

[7] Contrary to Anthropic's official documentation, Claude Sonnet 4.6 states in its response that its training data extends to early 2025 and cautions that finer details in its answer to the third question may be at the edge of its reliable knowledge. When asked about the 97th Academy Awards (Oscars) additionally, held in March 2025, Claude Sonnet 4.6 provided an incorrect answer for Best Actress in a Leading Role, naming Demi Moore instead of Mikey Madison.

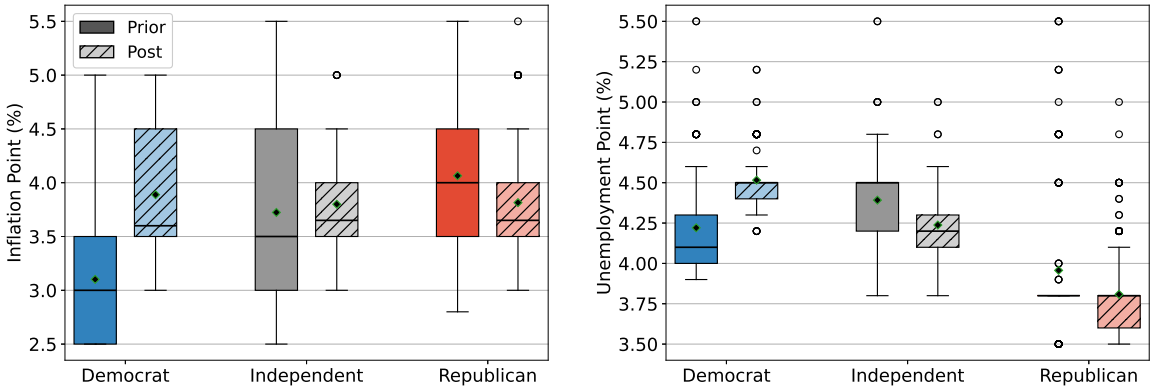
[8] Expected Parrot is an open-source platform for running surveys and AI-led interviews and for collecting responses from both humans and AI agents. It also supports administering the same survey simultaneously across multiple LLMs.



(a) GPT 5.1



(b) Claude Sonnet 4.6



(c) Gemini 3.1 Pro Preview

Notes: Outliers beyond the 2.5th and 97.5th percentiles are excluded. The left column corresponds to inflation point forecasts and the right column corresponds to unemployment forecasts. Boxes with hatched fill indicate posterior survey responses given information up to November 6, immediately after Election Day. A diamond-shaped dot indicates the mean value.

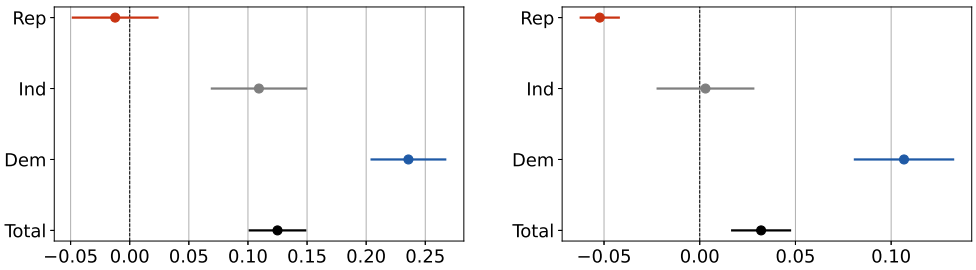
Figure 4: AI agents' Point Forecasts

schema to facilitate parsing.

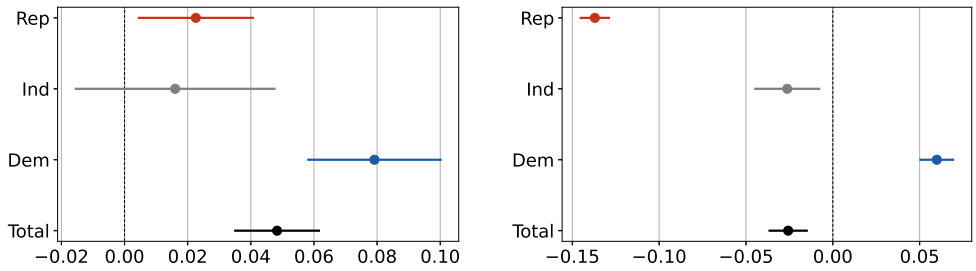
Direction of Forecast Revisions In Figure 4, for both inflation and unemployment point forecasts, Democrat-persona AI agents revise their forecasts upward, mirroring human survey participants' responses. Republican-persona AI agents also successfully reproduce Republican households' responses. Overall, LLM models successfully capture the opposing directions of forecast revisions across both macroeconomic variables. One notable feature of the AI-generated responses is that simulated forecasts never fall below zero (that is, no AI agent predicts deflation) whereas human respondents occasionally do. Among the 399 human forecasters of interest, 88 reported deflation expectations in the first survey wave and 126 in the second. We suspect that this reflects LLMs' tendency to learn aggregate-level forecasts and historically realized inflation data, both of which are predominantly positive.

No Partisan Asymmetries in Disagreement No systematic partisan gap in disagreement emerges. Human survey responses display lower dispersion among Republican households and higher dispersion among Democratic households immediately after the election, but the interquartile range reported in Figure 4 shows no consistent partisan pattern. It is worth noting that heterogeneity in forecasts across individuals is not guaranteed. For unemployment forecasts in particular, Gemini 3.1 Pro Preview produces patterns that contrast with human survey responses: disagreement narrows among Democrat-persona agents but widens among Republican-persona agents, the opposite of what is observed among human respondents. GPT-5.1 similarly fails to reproduce the marked narrowing of disagreement observed among Republican households in inflation forecasts. Zarifhonarvar (2026) documents that assigning different demographic profiles induces heterogeneity across demographic groups, but does not account for political partisanship. Our findings clarify that political partisanship — and in particular, within-group forecast variance — is not reliably reproduced by LLM agents in a manner consistent with what we observe in human survey responses.

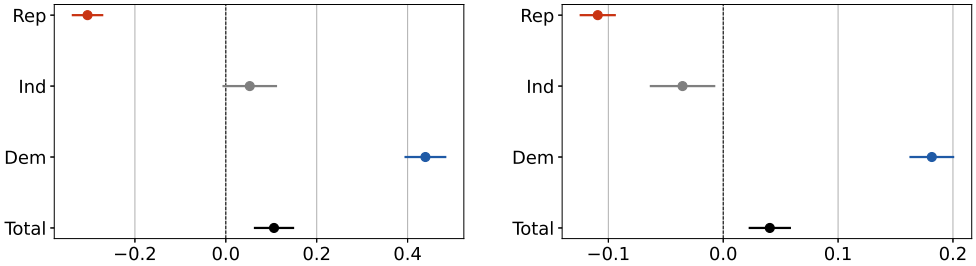
No Partisan Asymmetries in Subjective Uncertainty Figure 5 presents changes in subjective uncertainty, measured following the approach in Figure 3. The change in subjective uncertainty is generally smaller for Republican-persona agents than for Democrat-persona agents, broadly consistent with the directional pattern observed in human surveys. However, the AI-generated responses deviate from human survey evidence in two



(a) GPT 5.1



(b) Claude Sonnet 4.6



(c) Gemini 3.1 Pro Preview

Notes: Outliers beyond the 2.5th and 97.5th percentiles are excluded. The left column reports inflation point forecasts and the right column unemployment forecasts. Changes in subjective uncertainty are measured as the difference between the variance of posterior and prior distributional forecasts. Negative values indicate a reduction in subjective uncertainty (greater confidence), while positive values indicate an increase in subjective uncertainty (lower confidence). Whiskers indicate 95% confidence intervals and Total refers to the full sample.

Figure 5: Subjective Uncertainty change in AI Agents' Distributional Forecasts

important respects. First, Republican-persona agents fail to reproduce the decline in inflation uncertainty observed among Republican households. Only Gemini 3.1 Pro Preview produces negative values, while Claude Sonnet 4.6 yields a statistically significant positive value, implying that subjective uncertainty actually increases for Republican-persona agents. Second, Democrat-persona agents exhibit increased inflation uncertainty across all models, whereas human Democrat households show a statistically sig-

nificant decline in the second wave.

To quantify how closely the forecasts generated by synthetic personas resemble those of human respondents, we use the *Concordance Correlation Coefficient* (CCC). Unlike a simple correlation coefficient, the CCC captures both *precision* and *accuracy*, and therefore provides a natural metric for evaluating the extent to which AI-generated responses agree with human responses in levels rather than merely co-move with them.

Formally, for a given outcome variable, let H denote the corresponding human response and AI the response generated by the synthetic persona. The CCC is defined as

$$\rho_c = \frac{2\rho\sigma_H\sigma_{AI}}{\sigma_H^2 + \sigma_{AI}^2 + (\mu_H - \mu_{AI})^2}, \tag{2}$$

where μ_H and μ_{AI} denote the means of the human and AI-generated responses, σ_H^2 and σ_A^2 their variances, and ρ the Pearson correlation between H and A. The coefficient takes values in $[-1, 1]$, with larger values indicating greater agreement between synthetic and human responses.

We compute the CCC separately for inflation and unemployment expectations, and for each of the key measures in our survey. In particular, we compare *prior* beliefs, *posterior* beliefs, and *revisions*, where revisions are defined as the change between posterior and prior responses. We also evaluate agreement in respondents' subjective uncertainty. This approach allows us to assess whether synthetic personas resemble humans not only in the levels of their forecasts, but also in how they update their beliefs and express uncertainty in response to new information. The results are presented in Table 3.

We find that the CCC values are generally low, suggesting that, at the individual level, LLMs are limited in their ability to replicate human behavior. This pattern appears to reflect an important difference in dispersion: human forecasts cover a wide range, whereas LLM-generated forecasts are concentrated within a much narrower interval. In the case of inflation expectations, human respondents report both inflationary and deflationary outcomes, while LLM forecasts remain concentrated in a narrow inflationary range.

More importantly, LLMs mostly fail to capture the dynamics of subjective uncertainty. This is a key limitation, because replicating human expectations requires matching not only the central tendency of beliefs but also the evolution of confidence surrounding those beliefs. The inability of LLMs to reproduce this dimension suggests that they do not fully capture the underlying process by which individuals form and update expectations.

Across models, `Claude Sonnet 4.6` and `Gemini-3.1` appear to perform modestly

Table 3: LLM vs. Human Forecasts and Revisions

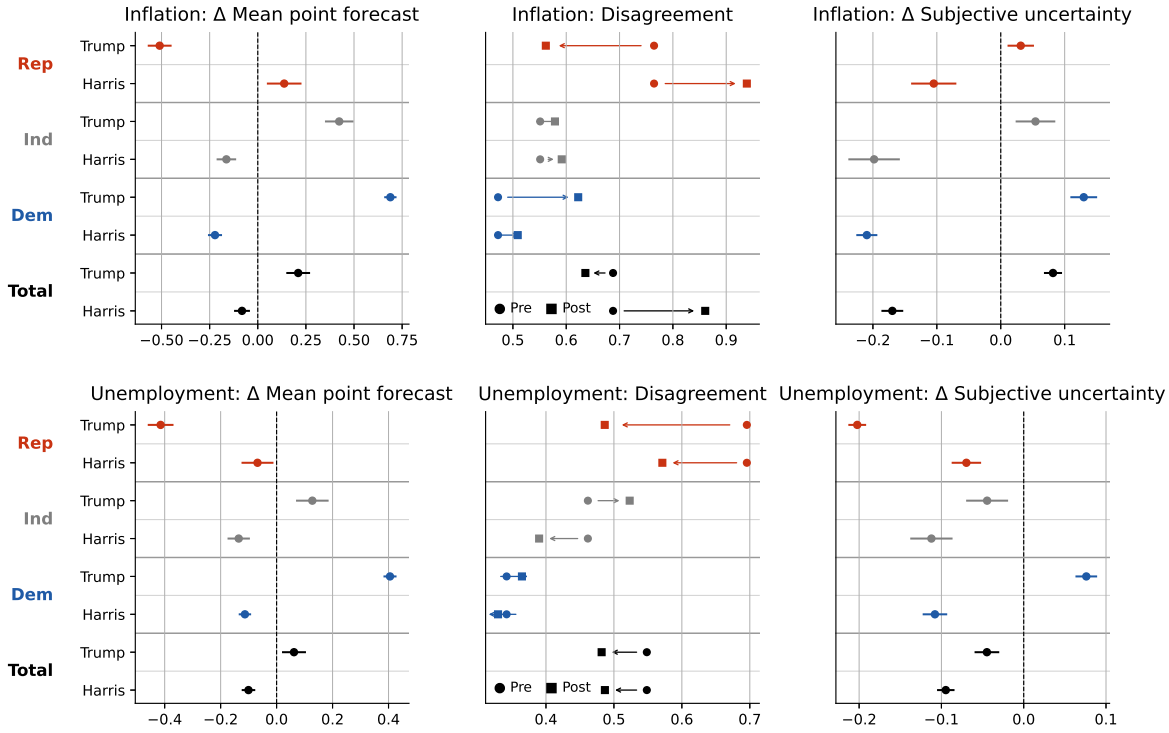
	Prior			Posterior			Revision		
LLM	LLM	Human	CCC	LLM	Human	CCC	LLM	Human	CCC
Panel A. Point Inflation									
gpt-5.1	4.29	3.29	0.001	4.44	2.74	-0.010	0.15	-0.54	0.010
claude-sonnet-4-6	4.10	3.29	-0.002	4.31	2.74	0.004	0.21	-0.54	0.021
gemini-3.1	3.62	3.29	0.002	3.90	2.74	0.002	0.28	-0.54	0.021
Panel B. Inflation Uncertainty									
gpt-5.1	3.97	4.05	0.082	4.13	3.29	0.014	0.16	-0.77	0.028
claude-sonnet-4-6	4.24	4.05	0.045	4.32	3.29	0.010	0.08	-0.77	0.009
gemini-3.1	3.02	4.05	0.106	3.14	3.29	0.013	0.11	-0.77	0.052
Panel C. Point Unemployment									
gpt-5.1	4.65	6.95	0.008	4.71	7.18	0.012	0.06	0.23	0.012
claude-sonnet-4-6	4.75	6.95	0.016	4.82	7.18	0.014	0.06	0.23	0.022
gemini-3.1	4.17	6.95	0.004	4.25	7.18	0.017	0.08	0.23	0.018
Panel D. Unemployment Uncertainty									
gpt-5.1	2.26	1.84	0.030	2.82	1.52	0.007	0.02	-0.32	0.051
claude-sonnet-4-6	2.12	1.84	0.061	2.08	1.52	0.033	-0.04	-0.32	0.045
gemini-3.1	1.43	1.84	0.076	1.46	1.52	0.016	0.04	-0.32	0.093

Notes: The table reports mean forecasts and mean subjective uncertainty for LLM-generated synthetic respondents and human respondents for inflation and unemployment, separately for prior beliefs, posterior beliefs, and revisions. Revisions are defined as posterior minus prior. For each outcome, we also report the Concordance Correlation Coefficient (CCC), which measures agreement between LLM and human responses. Higher CCC values indicate greater similarity between synthetic and human responses. Shaded cells denote the highest CCC within each panel and category.

better than `GPT 5.1`. `Claude Sonnet 4.6` is the only model that was able to capture the direction of aggregate subjective uncertainty revision for unemployment expectations.

4 LLM: Counterfactual

As a robustness check, we conduct a counterfactual exercise using `Claude Sonnet 4.6`, in which we reverse the outcome of the 2024 election and assume that Harris wins instead of Trump. This exercise allows us to assess whether the LLM can meaningfully reason through a hypothetical scenario or whether it merely reproduces patterns embedded in its training data.



Notes: The figure shows how inflation and unemployment beliefs of synthetic respondent (generated using Claude Sonnet 4.6) changed after the election across political affiliation groups. We consider two cases: (1) Trump victory (true) and (2) Harris victory. The Δ panels report the average change between post-election and pre-election responses in mean point forecasts and subjective uncertainty; whiskers indicate 95% confidence intervals. The disagreement panels report belief dispersion in levels, measured as the cross-sectional standard deviation before the election (circles) and after the election (squares). The categories Rep, Ind, and Dem denote Republicans, Independents, and Democrats, respectively; Total refers to the full sample.

Figure 6: Counterfactual Exercise

Figure 6 shows that, although the synthetic personas fail to replicate the magnitude of volatility observed in human expectations (as discussed in the previous part), they nevertheless track partisan patterns reasonably well in qualitative terms under the baseline scenario of a Trump victory. Specifically, we observe downward revisions in both inflation and unemployment expectations among synthetic Republicans, with the opposite pattern for synthetic Democrats. Disagreement also moves in a similar direction: it declines among Republicans and rises among Democrats. For subjective uncertainty, however, the LLM captures the dynamics only for unemployment expectations. Taken together, these results suggest that, at least qualitatively, the counterfactual exercise might still be informative, at least qualitatively.

Under the counterfactual scenario of a Harris victory, the direction of point forecast revisions is reversed. In this case, synthetic respondents display not only greater confidence in unemployment forecasts, but also greater confidence in inflation forecasts. Interestingly, disagreement in unemployment expectations among synthetic Republicans would still decline.

5 Conclusion

This paper presents a unique survey experiment that allows us to study not only the well-documented partisan revision of inflation expectations following a change in political regime, but also the joint dynamics of inflation and unemployment expectations, together with changes in uncertainty and disagreement, both of which matter for real economic outcomes. We also examine whether AI personas can replicate the complex patterns observed in human respondents and whether they can be used for counterfactual exercises.

We find a noticeable partisan revision in point forecasts that largely offsets at the aggregate level. By contrast, the effect of the election on aggregate uncertainty and disagreement is more pronounced. Specifically, both Democrats and Republicans become more confident in their forecasts, but the source of this increased confidence appears to differ across groups: for Republicans, it is driven by the reinforcement of prior beliefs following their candidate's victory, whereas for Democrats, it seems to reflect strong negative emotions after their candidate's unexpected defeat. AI-generated respondents appear to fail to replicate the results quantitatively, as the AI-generated data are substantially less noisy. However, some models deliver promising qualitative results, reproducing the direction of updating in first moments and, to some extent, in second moments.

Our findings carry a clear implication for central banks and governments: relying solely on aggregate point forecasts after political shifts may be misleading. Because partisan revisions often move in opposite directions, they can offset one another in the aggregate and create the appearance of stability. Since households' expectations are strongly influenced by political preferences — particularly following salient political events — central banks and governments may need to tailor communication strategies to different partisan audiences to avoid exacerbating disagreement across groups aligned with different parties.

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Appendices

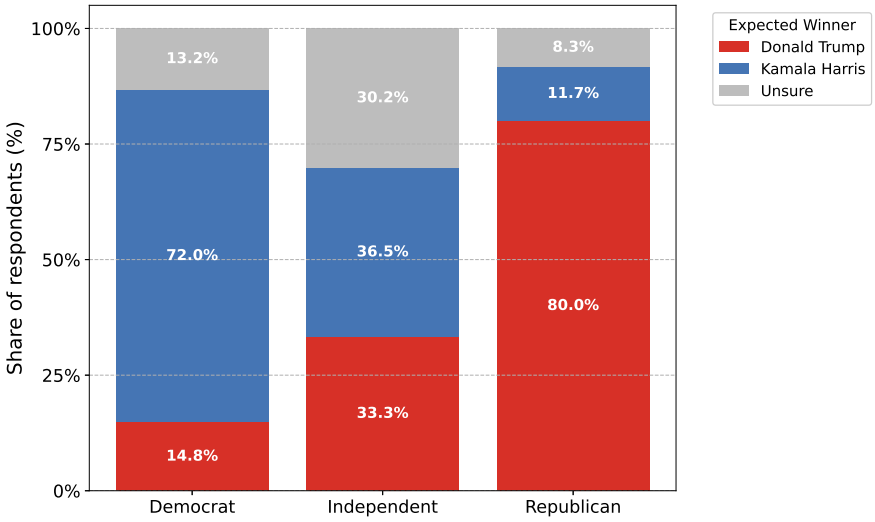
A Tables and Figures

Table A-1: Demographic Characteristics of Respondents

		Democrats (189)	Republicans (145)	Independents (65)	Total (402)
share (%)					
Age					
	under 40	34.4	25.5	50.8	33.8
	40-60	42.9	44.8	30.8	41.5
	over 60	22.8	29.7	18.5	24.6
					100
gender					
	Female	49.7	41.4	46.2	46.3
	Male	50.3	58.6	53.8	53.7
					100
Race					
	White	65.6	75.2	67.7	69.2
	Non-white	34.4	24.8	32.3	30.8
					100
Education					
	High school	10.6	15.9	18.5	13.7
	Some college	24.3	15.9	23.1	20.9
	College	65.1	68.3	58.5	65.4
					100
Income					
	Under 50k	50.8	40.7	50.8	47.0
	50k-100k	27.5	42.8	36.9	34.8
	Over 100k	21.7	16.6	12.3	18.2
					100

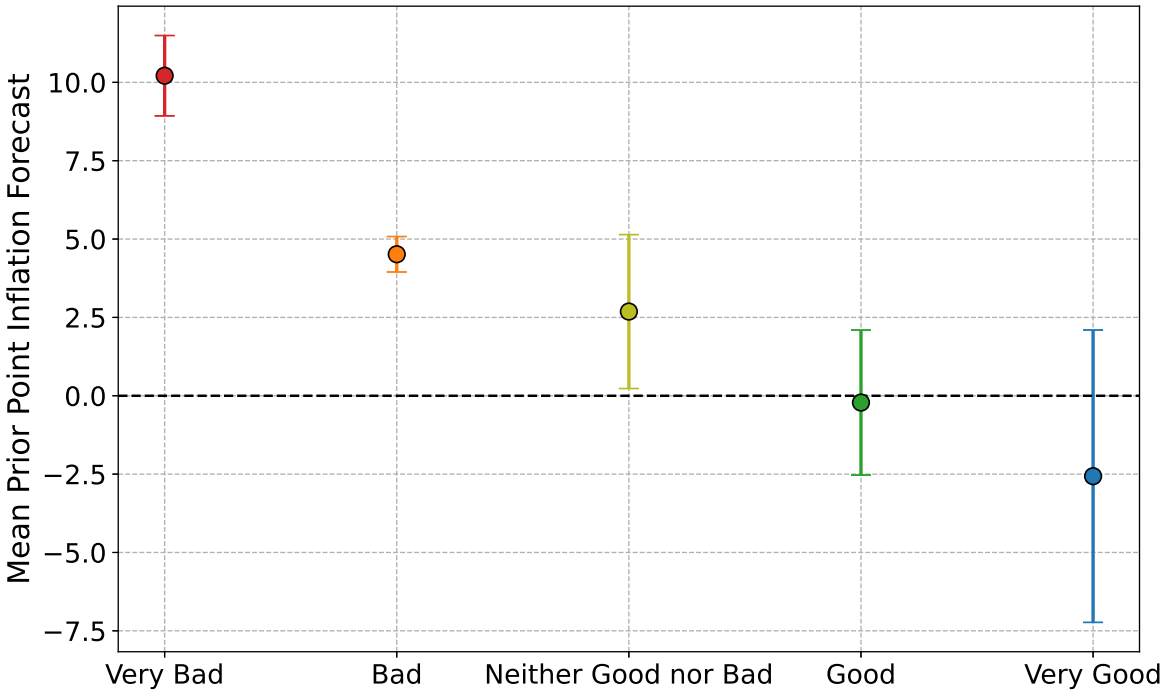
Note: The table presents the demographic characteristics of our sample by political affiliation. Each group includes both respondents who strongly identify with the party and independents who lean toward it.

Figure A-1: Perceived Election Outcome by Political Affiliation



Notes: In the first wave, respondents were asked, "Who do you believe will win the upcoming U.S. presidential election?" The figure shows the distribution of responses across political groups. Each group includes both respondents who strongly identify with the party and independents who lean toward it. A negligible number of observations selecting another candidate were excluded.

Figure A-2: Perception of Inflation Forecast



Notes: The figure displays mean prior point inflation forecasts by respondents' perception of their forecast's favorability for the economy, with 95% confidence intervals. Respondents were asked how favorable different ranges of inflation are for the economy, and their own forecasts were matched to the corresponding category. Notably, the deflationary category covered only the range of 1–2% deflation, so all deflationary point forecasts were assigned to this category.

B Knowledge Cutoff Verification Prompts

B.1 Prompt 1

- What is your knowledge cutoff date?

B.2 Prompt 2

- Who won the 2024 US presidential election?
- Who were candidats? who was selected as the Democratic Vice Presidential candidate to run?
- Please answer strictly based on your pre-training knowledge without using any external search tools.

B.3 Prompt 3

- What were the results of the German federal election held in February 2025?
- Who was eventually elected as the Chancellor of Germany following this election?
- Please answer strictly based on your pre-training knowledge without using any external search tools.

B.4 LLM Responses (As of March 29, 2026)

GPT-5.1

- Prompt 1

    1. My knowledge cutoff date is **October 2024**

- Prompt 2

    1. As of my pre-training knowledge cutoff in October 2024, the 2024 U.S. presidential election had **not yet taken place** (Election Day is November 5, 2024), so **no winner was known**

2. Based strictly on that pre-training knowledge, the major general-election tickets were:

   - **Democratic Party:** - **Presidential nominee:** Kamala Harris (after Joe Biden withdrew from the race in July 2024) - **Vice-presidential nominee:** **Tim Walz**, Governor of Minnesota

   - **Republican Party:** - **Presidential nominee:** Donald Trump - **Vice-presidential nominee:** J.D. Vance, U.S. Senator from Ohio

   There were also notable third-party/independent candidacies, including: - **Robert F. Kennedy Jr.** with running mate **Nicole Shanahan** - **Jill Stein** (Green Party) - **Cornel West** (independent/third-party), with changing VP picks over time

   To your specific VP question: **Tim Walz was selected as the Democratic vice-presidential candidate** to run with Kamala Harris.

- Prompt 3

1. I don't have any information about a German federal election held in February 2025. My training only goes up to October 2024, and I can't access events or results after that date. As of my last update, the most recent federal election was on 26 September 2021, and the next regular one was expected in 2025 but had not yet taken place.
2. For the same reason, I don't know who was elected Chancellor of Germany following any election in 2025. As of October 2024, Olaf Scholz (SPD) was the serving Chancellor, based on the 2021 election and the subsequent traffic-light coalition (SPD–Greens–FDP).
3. All of the above is based strictly on pre-training knowledge up to October 2024, without using any external search or updated tools.

Claude Sonnet 4.6

- Prompt 1

1. My knowledge cutoff date is early 2025. This means I have information about events, developments, and publications up until that point, but nothing after.

- Prompt 2

1. Winner

   Donald Trump won the 2024 US Presidential Election, defeating the Democratic candidate. He won both the **Electoral College** and the **popular vote**, marking his return to the presidency for a second term.

2. Candidates

   Republican Ticket: - **President:** Donald Trump - **Vice President:** **JD Vance** (Senator from Ohio)

   Democratic Ticket: - **President:** **Kamala Harris** (incumbent Vice President) - **Vice President:** **Tim Walz** (Governor of Minnesota)

   —

   Key Context: - **President Joe Biden** had initially been the Democratic candidate but **withdrew from the race in July 2024**, endorsing Kamala Harris - Kamala Harris then became the Democratic presidential nominee - **Tim Walz** was selected as her Vice Presidential running mate - Trump's victory made him only the **second president in US history** to win non-consecutive terms (after Grover Cleveland)

   —

   This answer is based on my pre-training knowledge, as requested.

- Prompt 3
  The German federal election was held on **February 23, 2025**. The key results were approximately:

  1. - **CDU/CSU (Friedrich Merz)** – 28-29% → **First place**, the clear winner - **AfD (Alice Weidel)** – 20-21% → Second place, a historically strong result for the party - **SPD (Olaf Scholz)** – 16-17% → A significant decline from their previous result - **Greens** – 11-12% - **FDP** – around the 5% threshold (borderline) - **BSW (Sahra Wagenknecht's party)** – around 4-5%

     The CDU/CSU won the most seats, but fell well short of a majority, requiring coalition negotiations.

  2. Chancellor Elected

     Friedrich Merz (CDU) was elected as **Chancellor of Germany** following the election. He led coalition negotiations, most likely forming a govern-

ment with the SPD as the primary coalition partner, as the so-called "firewall" against cooperating with the AfD was maintained by mainstream parties.

> **Caveat**: While my training includes information up to early 2025, some finer details of the coalition formation and confirmation vote may be at the edge of my reliable knowledge. Please verify specific figures independently.

Gemini-3.1-pro-preview

- Prompt 1

  1. **What is your knowledge cutoff date?** My core training data generally includes information up to **early 2024**. However, the exact cutoff date can vary slightly depending on the specific version of the Gemini model you are accessing (e.g., Gemini 1.5 Pro, Gemini 1.5 Flash). For events or developments that occurred after my training period, I will not know about them unless that information is provided to me in the prompt.

- Prompt 2
  Based on my pre-training knowledge, here are the answers to your questions:

  1. **Who won the 2024 US presidential election?** Donald Trump won the 2024 United States presidential election.
  2. **Who were the candidates? Who was selected as the Democratic Vice Presidential candidate?** * **The Candidates:** The major party candidates for president were Donald Trump (Republican) and Vice President Kamala Harris (Democrat), who became the nominee after President Joe Biden withdrew from the race in July 2024. There were also several third-party and independent candidates, including Jill Stein (Green Party), Chase Oliver (Libertarian Party), Cornel West (Independent), and Robert F. Kennedy Jr. (who suspended his independent campaign prior to the election and endorsed Donald Trump). * **Democratic Vice Presidential Candidate:** Tim Walz, the Governor of Minnesota, was selected as the Democratic Vice Presidential candidate to run alongside Kamala Harris. (For context, JD Vance, a US Senator from Ohio, was the Republican Vice Presidential candidate running alongside Donald Trump).

- Prompt 3

    1. Based strictly on my pre-training knowledge, I cannot answer these questions. My pre-training data has a knowledge cutoff that precedes the events of February 2025. Therefore, I do not have any information regarding the results of the February 2025 German federal election, nor do I know who was elected as Chancellor following that election.

C LLM Prompts

C.1 Agent instruction and survey prompt structure

For each persona i, the model is assigned a fixed set of traits constructed based on human respondents. These traits include demographic characteristics, family background, political affiliation, employment status, and news consumption behavior. The agent is initialized with the general identity statement

> You are a U.S. survey participant.

together with the following persona-specific fields:

- ID: `{persona_id}`
- State: `{state}`
- Gender: `{gender}`
- Age: `{age}`
- Race: `{race}`
- Family status: `{family_status}`
- Number of kids: `{number_kids}`
- Education level: `{education_level}`
- Income level: `{income_level}`
- Political affiliation: `{political_affiliation}`
- Employment status: `{employment_status}`
- News consumption regularity: `{news_consumption}`
- News types: `{news_type}`

C.2 Pre-election module

Pre-election context block

For the first wave, the following instruction is passed to the model:

> It is November 2, 2024 (three days before the U.S. presidential election).
> Your expectation about who will win the U.S. presidential election is: `{prior_expected_winner}`.
> Respond only with knowledge a typical U.S. resident with these demographics might have by this date.
> Do not use hindsight about the election outcome or future events.
> Answer as if you were a U.S. household with these demographic characteristics.

Pre-election survey questions

Under this pre-election context, each persona answers the following five questions:

1. **Inflation or deflation direction.**
   Prompt:

   > Over the next 12 months, do you think that there will be inflation or deflation? (Note: deflation is the opposite of inflation)

   Response options: Inflation; Deflation (the opposite of inflation).

2. **Inflation/deflation point forecast.**
   Prompt:

   > What do you expect the rate of `{infl_or_defl.answer}` to be over the next 12 months? Please give your best guess (in percentage).

3. **Inflation density forecast.**
   Prompt:

   > We would like you to think about the different things that may happen to inflation over the next 12 months.
   >
   > In your view, what would you say is the percent chance that, over the next 12 months...
   >
   > Bins:
   >
   > - the rate of inflation will be 12% or higher

- the rate of inflation will be between 8% and 12%
- the rate of inflation will be between 4% and 8%
- the rate of inflation will be between 2% and 4%
- the rate of inflation will be between 0% and 2%
- the rate of deflation (opposite of inflation) will be between 0% and 2%
- the rate of deflation (opposite of inflation) will be between 2% and 4%
- the rate of deflation (opposite of inflation) will be between 4% and 8%
- the rate of deflation (opposite of inflation) will be between 8% and 12%
- the rate of deflation (opposite of inflation) will be 12% or higher

The sum of the percent chances assigned to bins must add up to 100.
Return your answer as a JSON object.

4. **Unemployment point forecast.**
   Prompt:

   What do you expect the unemployment rate to be in 12 months? Please give your best guess (in percentage).

5. **Unemployment density forecast.**
   Prompt:

   Now, we would like you to think about the different things that may happen to unemployment over the next 12 months.

   In your view, what would you say is the percent chance that, over the next 12 months...

   Bins:

   - the average unemployment rate will be 10% or more
   - the average unemployment rate will be between 8% and 10%
   - the average unemployment rate will be between 7% and 8%
   - the average unemployment rate will be between 6% and 7%
   - the average unemployment rate will be between 5% and 6%
   - the average unemployment rate will be between 4% and 5%
   - the average unemployment rate will be between 3% and 4%
   - the average unemployment rate will be between 2% and 3%
   - the average unemployment rate will be 2.0% or less

The sum of the percent chances assigned to bins must add up to 100.
Return your answer as a JSON object.

C.3 Post-election module

Post-election context block

For the second wave, the same persona is prompted under the following post-election information set:

It is the morning of November 6, 2024 (the day after the election).
You have seen typical next-morning headlines indicating that Donald Trump won the presidential election.
You have not yet seen detailed policy analysis, market commentary, or expert forecasts.
Your prior expectation about who would win the U.S. presidential election was: `{prior_expected_winner}`

Respond only with knowledge a typical U.S. resident with these demographics might have by this date.
Do not use hindsight beyond what such a person could know on the morning of November 6, 2024.
Do not use later analyses or future events.

On November 2, 2024, you answered the same survey as follows:

- Inflation or deflation: `{prior_infl_or_defl}`
- Expected inflation/deflation rate: `{prior_inflation_point}`%
- Inflation density forecast: `{prior_inflation_density}`
- Expected unemployment rate: `{prior_unemployment_point}`%
- Unemployment density forecast: `{prior_unemployment_density}`

You may revise both your point forecasts and your density forecasts if your beliefs have changed.

Post-election survey questions

Under this post-election context, the same five questions are administered again:

1. **Updated inflation or deflation direction.**
   Prompt:

> Over the next 12 months, do you think that there will be inflation or deflation? (Note: deflation is the opposite of inflation)

Response options: Inflation; Deflation (the opposite of inflation).

2. **Updated inflation/deflation point forecast.**
   Prompt:

   > What do you expect the rate of {`infl_or_defl.answer`} to be over the next 12 months? Please give your best guess (in percentage).

3. **Updated inflation density forecast.**
   Prompt: Same density-forecast prompt as in the pre-election module, with probabilities over inflation and deflation bins constrained to sum to 100 and returned as a JSON object.

4. **Updated unemployment point forecast.**
   Prompt:

   > What do you expect the unemployment rate to be in 12 months? Please give your best guess (in percentage).

5. **Updated unemployment density forecast.**
   Prompt: Same density-forecast prompt as in the pre-election module, with probabilities over unemployment bins constrained to sum to 100 and returned as a JSON object.